

Kimberly Bertoli and Emiliano Sironi*

The Shadow of Crime: The Effect of Victimization on Perceived Safety and Subjective Well-Being in Europe (2002–2023)

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Abstract: This research provides evidence of the multidimensional costs of crime victimization in Europe. Using data from 11 rounds of the European Social Survey (ESS) collected between 2002 and 2023, the study aims to estimate the effect of experienced victimization on two distinct domains of human perception: perceived safety and subjective well-being. The results indicate that crime victimization leads to a significant and enduring reduction in all explored metrics. Furthermore, gender-disaggregated analysis through interaction models reveals a gender-specific impact on perceived safety, which is 47 % larger for women than for men. Finally, the analysis identifies a significant temporal evolution of the consequences of victimization: the subjective well-being penalty associated with being a victim nearly doubled between 2002 and 2023. These findings challenge current policy paradigms that prioritize raw crime reduction over victim recovery and subjective security management.

Keywords: victimization; safety perception; subjective well-being

1 Introduction

The impact of criminal actions is conventionally assessed through their legal, institutional, and economic consequences, including prosecution rates, criminal justice expenditures, property losses, and measurable harms inflicted on victims. Although these dimensions are essential for understanding the societal burden of criminal activity, they offer only a partial representation of its full effects. Those dimensions do not adequately capture the extent to which crime shapes individuals' everyday experience of security, their confidence in the environments they inhabit, and their

***Corresponding author: Emiliano Sironi**, Department of Statistical Sciences, Università Cattolica del Sacro Cuore, Largo Gemelli, 1 Milano 20123, Italy, E-mail: emiliano.sironi@unicatt.it <https://orcid.org/0000-0001-9129-3133>

Kimberly Bertoli, School of Economics, Bocconi University, Via Sarfatti, 25 Milano 20136, Italy, E-mail: bertolikimberly@gmail.com

broadener subjective well-being. Victimization may therefore generate substantial welfare losses that extend well beyond the material consequences typically considered in standard economic and criminological frameworks (Kuroki 2013).

The experience of crime is not exhausted by the immediate event. A burglary, for instance, may involve relatively limited financial loss while simultaneously producing a durable erosion of trust, an increased perception of vulnerability, and a persistent sense of insecurity. Similarly, assault may have consequences that are psychological and social as much as physical, affecting subsequent patterns of mobility, sociability, and engagement with public space. These dimensions are often difficult to quantify in conventional crime metrics, although they are central to understanding how victimization affects lived experience. From this perspective, crime should be analysed not only as a violation of law or as a source of economic damage, but also as a determinant of individual well-being (Navarrete-Hernandez et al. 2023).

The experience of victimization, whether direct (personal) or indirect (household-level), is a source of persistent psychological trauma that permeates an individual's social and cognitive landscape. For instance, a victim of a residential burglary does not merely lose material possessions; they suffer a profound loss of the home as a protective environment. Similarly, victims of a physical assault do not just recover from biological wounds; they are often left with a permanent revision of their perceived physical integrity and a heightened state of environmental hyper-vigilance.

This paper contributes to bridging the critical gap between objective crime statistics and the subjective reaction to that human experience. Using data from the first 11 rounds of the European Social Survey (ESS, 2002–2023) and employing regression models, the paper provides evidence of the impact of victimization on safety perceptions and subjective well-being. Based on a sample exceeding 300,000 individuals, the study adopts a long-term perspective that accounts for more than 20 years of surveys collected within a unified framework in Europe.

In order to do this, the research is organized around three primary objectives. First, we seek to quantify the average magnitude of the reduction in *perceived safety* and *subjective well-being* (measured in its two elementary sub-components: *happiness* and *life satisfaction*) that follows a victimization experience. Second, we explore the temporal dynamics of this relationship: in a Europe that has seen a general “crime drop” in many categories over the last two decades, we ask whether the subjective trauma of being a victim has become more or less acute. Third, we investigate how gender moderates the internal reaction to crime.

Following these objectives, the remainder of the paper is organized as follows: Section 2 discusses the theoretical framework for the research, Section 3 presents the data and methods, while Section 4 displays the results of the empirical analysis. Finally, Section 5 concludes.

2 Literature Background

2.1 Crime as a Determinant of Subjective Well-Being

The emergence of the “Economics of Happiness” represented a paradigm shift in social science, challenging the traditional reliance on Gross Domestic Product (GDP) and per capita income as sufficient proxies for human welfare. Frey and Stutzer (2002) argued that subjective well-being data provide a rigorous, empirically valid, and theoretically consistent method for measuring the impact of non-market factors on human utility. They demonstrated that institutional quality, the robustness of social networks, and personal security are not merely ancillary factors but are core determinants of the satisfaction individuals derive from their existence.

In this economic framework, crime is categorized as a negative externality. Unlike a market transaction where parties enter voluntarily for mutual gain, crime is an involuntary interaction that imposes significant shadow costs on the victim without any form of market-based compensation. Following this approach, Dolan et al. (2008) refined the definition of these costs by identifying personal security as a predictor of life satisfaction. They noted a critical psychological distinction: while individuals demonstrate a remarkable capacity to adapt to changes in income or even to certain types of physical disability, they are significantly less likely to adapt to chronic threats to their physical safety or their sense of security regarding their home and property.

Beyond the direct trauma of a personal victimization event, the perceived safety of an individual is heavily influenced by threats and offences encountered within their local environment. Wilson and Kelling (1982) state that visible signs of social and physical disorder, such as graffiti, abandoned buildings, litter, public intoxication, or minor vandalism, act as symbolic signals to residents. These signals suggest that local social control has broken down and that the prevailing norms of the community are no longer being enforced.

This framework suggests that the fear of crime can be generated independently of actual victimization rates. A person who has never been a victim but lives in a neighborhood characterized by high visual disorder may report lower levels of perceived safety than a victim living in a highly ordered, affluent suburb. This is particularly relevant in the European context, where the degree of urbanization and the quality of urban maintenance vary significantly across nations. By including “domicile” as a control variable (ranging from big cities to rural areas), this analysis isolates the effect of personal victimization from the broader environmental “noise” of urban disorder. As Putnam (2000) famously observed, the erosion of community cohesion and social capital often correlates with these signs of disorder, leading to a

decline in collective efficacy, the shared belief in a community's ability to maintain public order, which further exacerbates the individual's sense of vulnerability.

A persistent and often counterintuitive theme in criminological research is the "Fear of Crime Paradox." This refers to the observation that groups who are statistically at the lowest objective risk of becoming victims of violent or property crime – specifically women and the elderly – consistently report the highest levels of subjective fear (Hale 1996). To explain this gender gap, Ferraro (1996) proposed the "shadow of sexual assault" hypothesis. This theory suggests that for women, the fear of "common" crimes like robbery or physical assault is often intensified because these events are filtered through the perceived threat of a more catastrophic and gender-based violation.

Finally, a crucial element in the literature review concerning the relationship between victimization, fear perception, and subjective well-being is the duration of the victimization effect. The "hedonic adaptation" theory (Brickman and Campbell 1971) suggests that humans possess an extraordinary resilience, eventually returning to a baseline level of happiness following either positive or negative life shocks. However, recent studies on safety shocks (Hanslmaier 2013) indicate that adaptation to crime may be incomplete or significantly delayed compared to other life events. If crime leads to a permanent downward revision of one's assessment of environmental risk, it may leave a lasting scar on evaluative well-being.

2.2 Victimization and Well-Being in Empirical Literature and Hypotheses Development

The relationship between direct victimization and the fear of crime or safety perception is central to criminological research, yet empirically complex. Some studies find strong associations between past victimization and increased fear (Balkin 1979), while others find only weak effects (Box et al. 1988). Hale (1996) argued that this inconsistency partly reflects differences in how victimization and fear are measured across studies. When victimization is measured as a recent and personally experienced event, the association with fear tends to be stronger. Kury and Ferdinand (1998) confirmed that the sense of safety while walking alone at night was significantly affected by past personal victimization.

Gender is the strongest and most robust predictor of safety perception: women report substantially lower feelings of safety than men across virtually all European countries, by magnitudes that dwarf the victimization effect. This finding is particularly striking because men are statistically more likely to be victimized than women – a pattern that Kury and Ferdinand (1998) termed the "crime-fright paradox." Age has also been found to be positively correlated with the fear of crime.

Education is typically negatively associated with fear: more highly educated individuals report higher feelings of safety, possibly because they have better access to information or are more likely to live in safer neighbourhoods. Living in larger cities is consistently associated with greater fear, a finding that Hale (1996) attributed to higher actual crime rates and more visible signs of disorder in urban environments.

The literature also focuses on the role played by direct episodes of aggression and indirect experiences that impact the community of interest. Direct crime victimization is associated with a reduction in happiness and life satisfaction, though the magnitude of the effect varies across studies depending on the type of crime, the measurement of victimization, and the control variables included. Powdthavee (2005), using British survey data, found that crime victimization is associated with a reduction in life satisfaction by an amount equivalent to several thousand pounds of annual income, suggesting that the psychological costs of crime substantially exceed material losses. Cohen (2008) estimated that the psychic costs of victimization, including fear, distress, and reduced quality of life, were typically several times larger than direct property losses.

In the European context, Di Tella and MacCulloch (2006) demonstrated, using survey data, that individuals living in higher-crime regions report systematically lower well-being, even after controlling for income, employment, and other socio-economic characteristics. Importantly, they found that the effect of local crime rates on well-being operated partly through safety perceptions: residents of areas with higher crime felt less safe, and this reduced sense of security was itself associated with lower happiness, suggesting a mediated pathway.

Focusing on ESS data, Sironi and Bonazzi (2016) extended this inquiry by examining how actual victimization experiences interact with this baseline fear, limiting their focus to the sixth round of the ESS. Results suggest that for women, the experience of crime is not merely an isolated incident; it acts as a powerful confirmatory shock that validates their perceived vulnerability and makes the world appear fundamentally more dangerous. More recently, Krulichova (2019) studied fear of crime and risk perception across European countries using ESS data, finding that the gap between subjective fear and objective risk varies substantially across national contexts. Countries with stronger institutional trust and more effective police tend to show lower fear-to-risk ratios, suggesting that institutional factors mediate the psychological translation of victimization experiences into subjective feelings of safety.

Finally, Krulichová (2025), in order to investigate the relationship between crime and quality of life, retrieved individual-level data from ESS Round 9, which were further integrated with homicide statistics from Eurostat and incarceration rates from the World Prison Brief. Research findings indicate that while direct victimization and official crime rates have a weak or inconsistent impact on subjective well-

being (SWB), the perceived lack of safety and the fear of crime are consistently linked to lower levels of happiness across almost all European countries. Interestingly, the data reveal that institutional trust in the police and the legal system is a much stronger predictor of well-being than actual crime levels. This suggests that policy interventions should prioritize social cohesion, community policing, and the reduction of socioeconomic vulnerability over repressive measures or higher imprisonment rates to effectively improve public well-being.

In light of the above-mentioned literature, the paper aims to test a set of three research hypotheses: we expect victimization to be negatively associated with safety perception, happiness, and life satisfaction (H1), consistent with the economics of happiness literature that positions crime among the significant negative determinants of subjective well-being. Then, we test whether the victimization penalty has remained stable over the 2002 to 2023 period or whether it has evolved in response to changing crime rates and social conditions (H2). Finally, we hypothesize that the impact on safety perception or subjective well-being is stronger for women than for men (H3), following decades of criminological research documenting the paradox of fear, whereby women report greater fear of crime despite typically lower objective victimization rates.

3 Data and Methodology

3.1 Data Source: The European Social Survey (ESS)

The empirical analysis is based on the European Social Survey (ESS), a multi-country, cross-national survey conducted biennially since 2002. For the purposes of this study, we utilize the integrated dataset covering all 11 rounds of the ESS carried out between 2002 and 2023 (ESS ERIC 2026). To ensure the highest degree of longitudinal consistency and cross-national comparability, the sample is restricted to the 15 countries that have participated in every round: Belgium, Switzerland, Germany, Spain, Finland, France, Great Britain, Hungary, Ireland, the Netherlands, Norway, Poland, Portugal, Sweden, and Slovenia. The resulting pooled sample consists of 302,802 individuals, providing the statistical power necessary to detect nuanced interaction effects and temporal trends.

3.2 Variable Description and Measurement

The analysed sample includes all respondents with valid responses for the victimization variable, the three outcome variables (one item exploring safety perception

and two items measuring happiness and life satisfaction, respectively, which serve as single-item measures for subjective well-being), and a full set of control variables, including respondent gender, age, years of education, and municipality characteristics. The variables used in the analysis are fully reported in the list below:

- *Victimization*: The primary independent variable is a binary indicator derived from the following survey question: “Have you or any member of your household been a victim of burglary or assault in the past five years?” Responses are coded as 1 for “Yes” and 0 for “No.” This measure captures both the direct trauma associated with personal victimization and the indirect, or vicarious, trauma resulting from the victimization of a household member.
- *Safety Perception*: The dependent variable for our first model. Respondents were asked: “How safe do you, or would you, feel walking alone in this area after dark?” Responses were recorded on a four-point scale: 1 (Very unsafe), 2 (Unsafe), 3 (Safe), and 4 (Very safe). We have reverse-coded the original ESS scale so that higher values consistently indicate a higher sense of security.
- *Happiness*: The dependent variable for our second model, measured on an 11-point scale from 0 (Extremely unhappy) to 10 (Extremely happy). This variable captures the affective or emotional dimension of well-being.
- *Life Satisfaction*: The dependent variable for our third model, measured on an 11-point scale from 0 (Extremely dissatisfied) to 10 (Extremely satisfied). This variable captures the evaluative or cognitive dimension of well-being.
- *Socio-demographic covariates*: This set of control variables is used to disentangle the effect of victimization. It includes gender (male vs. female), age (in years), education (total years of full-time schooling), and domicile (a variable that classifies the domicile of residence in a set of ordered categories ranging from “big city” to “farm or home in the countryside”) which has been omitted in the output of regressions.

Descriptive statistics are reported in Table 1. Over the 21-year period, approximately 17.6 % of Europeans reported that they or a member of their household had been a victim of crime in the preceding five years. This average, however, masks profound geographical disparities.

However, the results in Table 1 do not show the temporal evolution of these descriptive patterns. Figure 1 addresses this gap, illustrating how the decline in victimization rates is accompanied by a gradual narrowing of the safety gap in the middle years, followed by a partial re-widening in the most recent rounds. The well-being gaps show a more striking temporal pattern: they are small in the early rounds but expand notably from Round 8 (2016) onward, with the life satisfaction gap reaching its maximum in Round 11.

Table 1: Descriptive statistics (pooled regression sample, ESS rounds 1–11).

Variable	Mean	SD	Min	Max	N
Victimization	0.176	0.381	0	1	302,802
Safety perception (1–4)	3.059	0.773	1	4	302,802
Happiness (0–10)	7.483	1.832	0	10	302,802
Life satisfaction (0–10)	7.190	2.111	0	10	302,802

Safety perception levels average 3.06 out of 4 points, while subjective well-being indices display mean values of 7.48 for *happiness* and 7.19 for *life satisfaction*, respectively.

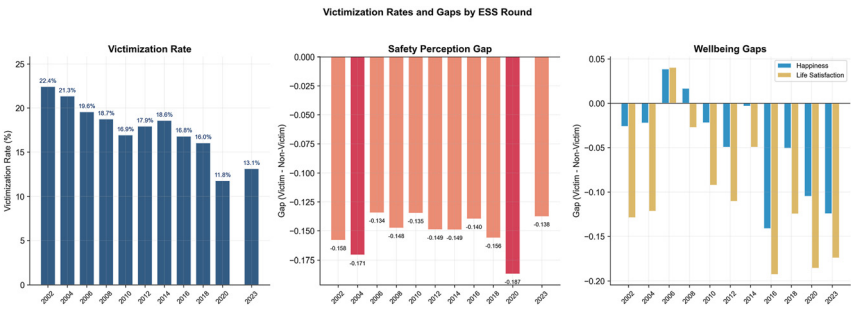


Figure 1: Victimization rates and victim/non-victim gaps by ESS round. Left: pooled victimization rate by round. Center: safety perception gap by round. Right: happiness and life satisfaction gaps by round.

3.3 Empirical Strategy and Model Specification

The analysis is conducted using Ordinary Least Squares (OLS) regression models. Although safety perception is an ordinal variable, OLS is commonly preferred in large-sample social research for its ease of interpretation and its ability to handle complex interaction terms without the convergence issues of non-linear models. To account for the nested nature of the data and to control for omitted variable bias, we include:

- *Country Fixed Effects:* To control for stable, time-invariant national characteristics such as legal traditions, cultural norms regarding crime reporting, and baseline levels of national prosperity.
- *Survey Round Fixed Effects:* To control for time-specific shocks that affected the entire European continent simultaneously, such as the 2008 financial crisis or the global pandemic.

Our baseline model is specified as:

$$Y_{ijt} = \beta_0 + \beta_1 \text{Victimization}_{ijt} + \beta_2 1[\text{Gender} = \text{Female}]_{ijt} + \beta_3 \text{Age}_{ijt} + \beta_4 \text{Education}_{ijt} \\ + \beta_5 \text{Domicile}_{ijt} + Y_j + \delta_t + \varepsilon_{it}$$

where Y_{ijt} represents the outcome of the model that can be specified in one of the following ways:

- *Safety perception* [Model 1]
- *Happiness* (First item for exploring *Subjective well-being*) [Model 2]
- *Life Satisfaction* (Second item for exploring *Subjective well-being*) [Model 3]

for individual i in country j and year t . The term γ_j denotes country fixed effects, while δ_t are time fixed effects; ε_{it} is the remainder error.

To test our third hypothesis regarding gender, we introduce an interaction term: $\text{Victimization} \times [\text{Gender} = \text{Female}]$.

4 Empirical Results

4.1 The Victimization Penalty: Main Results

Table 2 presents the results of our three models across the pooled sample from ESS Rounds 1 to 11. The coefficients offer a definitive quantification of the *victimization penalty*.

With respect to the results of Model 1, which considers the determinants of *safety perception*, the coefficient estimate for victimization is -0.1939 . This indicates that even after controlling for education, urbanization, and age, being a victim of crime results in a substantial and statistically robust drop in one's sense of security. The estimated effect of being female is -0.3897 , meaning there exists a consistent and significant baseline fear gap between men and women.

Shifting the focus to Model 2, which explores the determinants of *subjective well-being*, past experiences of victimization are associated with an average reduction in happiness of -0.1798 points. In a context where most respondents report scores between 6 and 9, a drop of nearly 0.2 is rather relevant.

The analysis in Model 3 shows a larger decline in *life satisfaction* after an episode of victimization, quantified at -0.2509 points on average, all other conditions being equal. This is a finding of major theoretical importance. Because *life satisfaction* is a reflective, cognitive judgment of one's life, the fact that it is more heavily impacted than happiness suggests that crime does not just dampen one's mood; it fundamentally alters the victim's evaluation of their life's security and future stability.

Table 2: OLS regression results (pooled ESS rounds 1–11).

Variable	Safety perception	Happiness	Life satisfaction
Victimization	−0.1939*** (0.0041)	−0.1798*** (0.0098)	−0.2509*** (0.0113)
Gender = Female	−0.3897*** (0.0029)	0.0431*** (0.0072)	0.0135 (0.0082)
Age	−0.0022*** (0.0001)	−0.0040*** (0.0002)	−0.0022*** (0.0002)
Education (years)	0.0253*** (0.0004)	0.0382*** (0.0010)	0.0449*** (0.0011)
Country FE	Yes	Yes	Yes
Round FE	Yes	Yes	Yes
Domicile control	Yes	Yes	Yes
Intercept	2.6568***	7.2319***	6.6712***
N	302,802	302,802	302,802
R ²	0.528	0.503	0.432

***p < 0.001, **p < 0.01, *p < 0.05. Robust standard errors in parentheses.

The control variables also align with theoretical expectations. Education is positively associated with all well-being measures. While the pooled models presented above capture the average victimization effect across all 11 rounds, they assume that this effect is constant over time. To test hypothesis H2 we estimate the baseline model separately for each round (with country fixed effects within each round), yielding 11 victimization coefficients, reported in Table 3.

Table 3: Victimization coefficient by ESS round (controlled, with country FE).

Round	Year	Safety $\hat{\beta}_1$	Happiness $\hat{\beta}_1$	Life satisfaction $\hat{\beta}_1$
1	2002	−0.175	−0.150	−0.245
2	2004	−0.193	−0.149	−0.269
3	2006	−0.162	−0.152	−0.167
4	2008	−0.186	−0.148	−0.182
5	2010	−0.176	−0.170	−0.264
6	2012	−0.221	−0.216	−0.275
7	2014	−0.180	−0.125	−0.169
8	2016	−0.186	−0.232	−0.307
9	2018	−0.190	−0.234	−0.291
10	2020	−0.245	−0.250	−0.310
11	2023	−0.184	−0.289	−0.362

Robust standard errors in parentheses.

The coefficient in the safety perception model fluctuates modestly, ranging between -0.16 and -0.25 across rounds, with no clear systematic trend. In contrast, the coefficient in the happiness model nearly doubles in magnitude, from -0.15 in the early rounds to -0.29 in Round 11. While the impact on perceived safety has remained relatively stable over the two decades, the penalty on happiness and life satisfaction has nearly doubled. In Round 1 (2002), the victimization penalty on life satisfaction was approximately -0.15 . By Round 11 (2023), that same penalty had widened to -0.36 . This suggests that in our modern, objectively safer European societies, the occurrence of crime has become more exceptional and, consequently, more traumatic. In a high-crime environment, victimization may be seen as a common misfortune; in a low-crime environment, it is perceived as a catastrophic violation of the social contract, leading to a much deeper sense of violation and a more significant drop in life satisfaction. The life satisfaction coefficient shows an even more dramatic widening, from values around -0.17 in some early rounds to -0.36 in 2023, as showed also in Figure 2.

This temporal divergence is especially striking given that actual victimization rates have been declining across Europe over the same period. The fact that fewer people are being victimized, but those who are suffer greater well-being consequences, raises important questions about changes in societal resilience, social support systems, and the psychological environment in which victims recover. Several potential explanations deserve consideration. First, changes in the composition of crime victims may play a role: as overall victimization rates have declined,

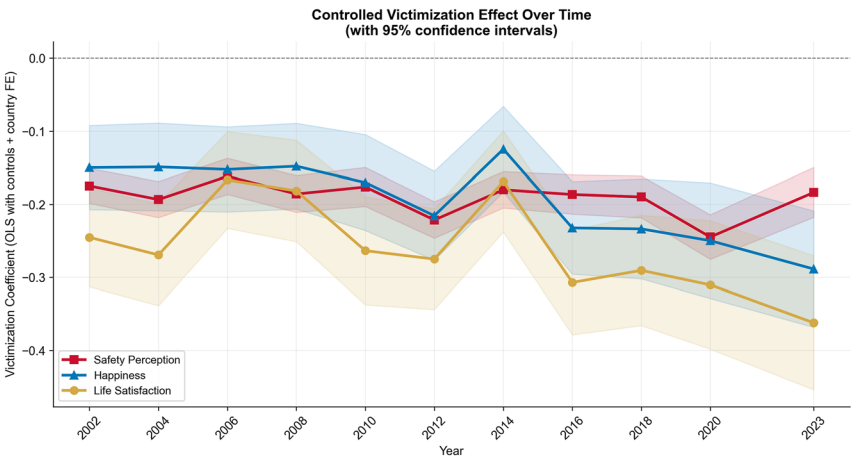


Figure 2: Victimization regression coefficients over time for safety perception, happiness, and life satisfaction (ci, estimated separately for each ESS round with country fixed effects and individual controls. Shaded areas represent 95 % confidence intervals.

the remaining victims may be those who experienced more severe or traumatic crimes. Second, declining social capital and weakening community bonds (Putnam 2000) may have reduced the informal support networks that historically helped crime victims recover. Third, the increasing penetration of social media may have amplified the psychological impact of victimization. Fourth, as crime has become less common, individuals may have come to expect a higher baseline level of personal safety; when victimization occurs in this context of heightened expectations, the contrast between expected and experienced reality may produce a larger psychological shock, consistent with prospect theory (Kahneman & Tversky 1979).

4.2 Gender Moderating Effect

One of the most innovative contributions of this study is the investigation of gender-specific responses to crime through interaction models. Table 4 presents these findings, allowing us to test the vulnerability moderation hypothesis.

In the safety perception model, the results reveal a stark gender asymmetry. For men, the baseline effect of victimization is -0.157 . However, for women, the interaction term adds an additional negative effect of -0.074 . This means that the total reduction in safety for a woman following a victimization experience is, on average, -0.231 points.

In other words, the reduction in perceived safety for women is larger than for men. This provides strong empirical support for the third hypothesis (H3). It suggests that the experience of crime acts as a much more powerful security shock for women, probably due to a general perception of physical vulnerability that is activated by the incident. Interestingly, Table 4 shows that this gendered magnification does not exist

Table 4: Gender interaction models (pooled ESS rounds 1 to 11).

Variable	Safety perception	Happiness	Life satisfaction
Victimization	-0.157^{***} (0.005)	-0.176^{***} (0.014)	-0.233^{***} (0.016)
Female	-0.376^{***} (0.003)	0.044^{***} (0.008)	0.020^* (0.009)
Victim $\times$ Female	-0.074^{***} (0.008)	-0.007 (0.019)	-0.035 (0.022)
Country FE	Yes	Yes	Yes
Round FE	Yes	Yes	Yes
Other controls (age, education, gender, domicile)	Yes	Yes	Yes
N	302,802	302,802	302,802

*** $p < 0.001$, ** $p < 0.01$, * $p < 0.05$. Robust standard errors in parentheses.

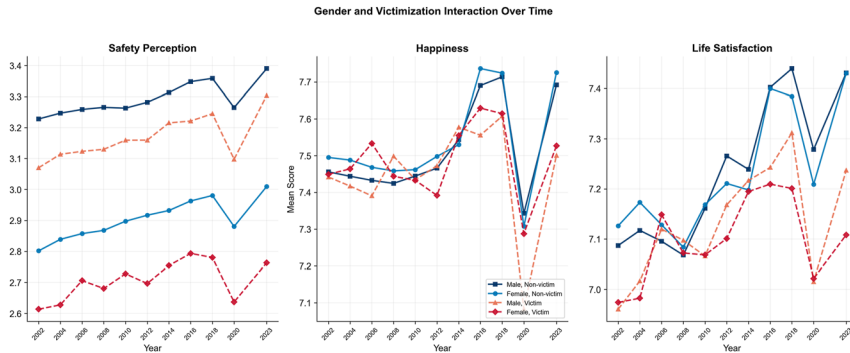


Figure 3: Mean safety perception, happiness, and life satisfaction over time, separately by gender and victimization status. Female victims consistently report the lowest safety perception scores.

for happiness or life satisfaction, where the interaction terms are negligible. This implies that while the specific domain of personal security is where women are uniquely penalized, the broader loss of well-being resulting from crime is felt similarly by both genders (Figure 3).

This pattern is consistent with the shadow of sexual assault hypothesis proposed by Ferraro (1996), which argues that women's fear of crime is compounded by the persistent underlying threat of sexual violence. A woman who has been burgled may experience an amplified sense of vulnerability because the intrusion into her personal space activates fears that go beyond the specific crime event.

5 Conclusions

By utilizing over 20 years of high-quality data from the European Social Survey, this study quantifies the subjective costs of crime and arrives at three primary conclusions. First, crime acts as a major depressant of subjective well-being, exerting a more persistent impact on cognitive life satisfaction than on happiness. The analysis reveals that the strength of the impact of crime victimization is profoundly gender-specific, as women experience a significantly more intense safety shock than men following a victimization event. Additionally, the psychological burden of crime appears to be intensifying in modern European societies. This trend is particularly noteworthy because it occurs even while objective crime rates have stabilized or declined, suggesting a growing divergence between statistical reality and individual perception.

To improve public well-being, governments and law enforcement agencies should undergo a paradigm shift by adopting subjective safety and victim well-being as core performance indicators, moving beyond a narrow focus on objective crime statistics. This approach acknowledges that the true impact of crime is reflected in the happiness and life satisfaction of the population. To support this, judicial and social systems must implement gender-aware victim support, providing targeted recovery programs that address the heightened psychological sensitivity and long-term fear often experienced by female victims.

Furthermore, policymakers should prioritize holistic urban management by reducing visible signs of neighbourhood disorder. Such actions serve as a preventative measure against the erosion of perceived safety and enhance the welfare of all citizens. By fostering social cohesion, strengthening institutional trust, and reducing socioeconomic vulnerability, society can move toward a model of safety where every individual possesses a resilient sense of security and a high quality of life. Ultimately, a truly safe society is defined not merely by lower crime rates, but by the collective sense of security and well-being of its people.

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